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LOOKING AGAIN AT INDIAN ART

VIDYA DEHEJIA

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An Introduction

INDIA IS A land with a rich cultural and artistic heritage, and one with a religion that reaches back over 3000 years. Dotted all over this extensive country are remains of our ancient civilisation—of cities, temples and shrines of various kinds—all testifying to the glories of the past. Nearly all the artistic monuments of the pre-Muslim days are of a religious nature or were made for a religious purpose. Secular art must have existed, for ancient Indian literature tells us that kings lived in magnificent palaces, decorated with wall-paintings and sculptures. But all this has vanished. What has come down to us today is the religious art in the form of temples and sculptures of stone and images in metal—substances that have stood the test of time. We assume that the palaces of the rulers were built of brick and were decorated with wooden sculptures, all of which have perished in the hot humid climate of this country.

At the same time, it would be wrong to think that the religious monuments and images of our ancient times were the work of men inspired solely by religious fervour. Occasionally there must have been a craftsman inspired by religious emotion and a divine vision. But the bulk of India's ancient religious art came from the hands of secular craftsmen. These were men to whom sculpture and architecture was a profession. The craftsman was a member of a guild that would work for any patron, whether he was Hindu, Buddhist or Jain. On one occasion the sculptor

might be asked to make an image of the Hindu god Vishnu, on another that of the Buddha and on a third occasion that of a Jain *tirthankara*. The craftsmen worked, of course, according to priestly instructions. When they were told to carve images of gods on a particular section of temple wall, they did so. When they were left to themselves to complete the decoration of a particular wall or pillar, they filled it with the forms they loved and knew best. It is because of this we see so many figures of scantily-dressed women in provocative poses decorating various portions of our ancient temples. Nevertheless we can say that all the remains of our ancient art are of a religious nature, in the sense that they form part of a religious structure, and that all the sculpture is to be found decorating a religious shrine.

It is only after the coming of the Muslims that the idea of art for its own sake first appears on any large scale. The Muslims built a large number of religious structures, but they also built tombs, forts and palaces of stone. In addition, they developed the art of painting to a remarkable degree. Paintings to illustrate manuscripts had begun in pre-Muslim days, but the Moghuls now provided a great stimulus to the art, and many non-religious books were illustrated with such paintings. Today, of course, modern sculpture and painting are purely art for its own sake—carved or painted because it has some special significance for the artist, or because it gives pleasure to both the artist and the viewer.

Whatever part of the country we live in, we have one or more famous artistic monuments in our vicinity. We usually take these for granted and regard them as part of the scenery. It is our intention to look more closely at these monuments. All of us have noticed, I'm sure, that ancient Indian art has several unusual characteristics—unusual and peculiar to our twentieth-century eyes. We may have looked at relief carvings in stone belonging to the centuries B.C. such as those decorating the monuments at Sanchi, and we may have wondered how it is that the artists were so completely unable to depict depth or any three-dimensional effect. (Plate 4) Or, we may have looked at sculpted and painted scenes from mythology and commented on the fact that the main figure of a story is represented much larger than the surrounding figures, and somewhat out of proportion with the rest of the scene. (Plates 11, 14, 21) Or, we may have looked at frightening figures of the Tibetan gods and wondered how such images came into existence (Plates 57-59).

There are reasons for these and other peculiarities. Sometimes, the answer lies in the religious environment in which the artists worked; sometimes in the material that they handled; sometimes in their craft tradition. Certainly, we can admire a work of art without a knowledge of any of these circumstances. But to appreciate that art truly, it is necessary to understand the circumstances of its origin. And it is with this in mind that we shall be looking at ancient Indian art.

My choice of subjects for the chapters of this book has been governed mainly by the importance of the particular art sites and objects in themselves. At the same time, I have tried to choose monuments representative of the art of different parts of the country so that each one of you, wherever you live, might find one chapter at least that discusses a site in your area, and with which you are perhaps familiar. I owe a debt of gratitude to all those scholars who have written previously on the art and culture of our country, and from whom, over the years, I have imbibed much knowledge. Those whose views I have incorporated in any detail are accorded special recognition in the Notes and Acknowledgements at the end of the book.

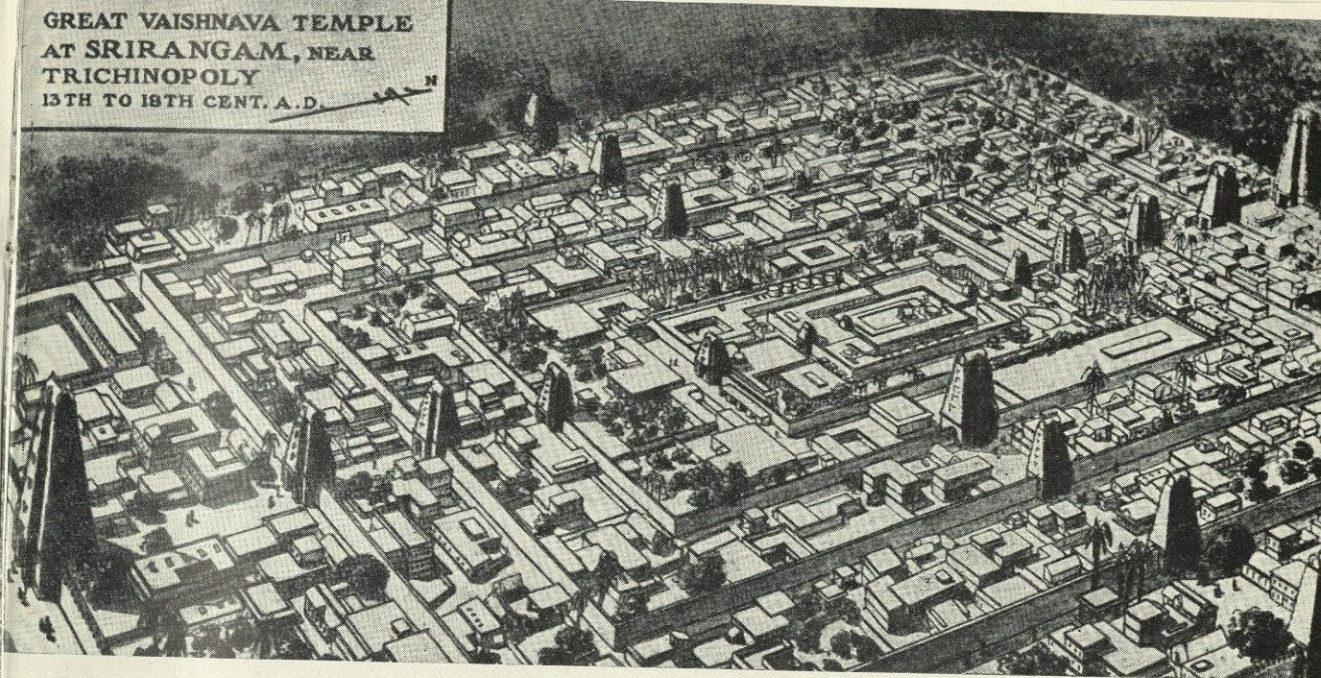


The Temple that is a Township : Srirangam

THE TOWN OF Srirangam, six miles west of Tiruchchirapalli, has a picturesque location. The river Kaveri divides to form its tributary the Kolladam just as it reaches Srirangam, and the two separate streams weave a garland around the temple-town. The Srirangam temple is remarkable mainly because of its dimensions, the whole being equal in area to a fair-sized town. The outermost wall is a rectangle roughly 2900 feet by 2500 feet, enclosing an area of over one quarter of a square mile. The walk around the outer wall, and not many choose to undertake it, is almost two-and-a-half miles long. The temple consists of seven rectangular enclosures, one within the other. There are 21 entrance gateways known as *gopurams*, leading into these various enclosures. [Plate 51]

The three outer courts at Srirangam are not of any special architectural or even religious significance. They are just like the surrounding town and form a sort of bazaar. It is here that one buys flowers, fruits, garlands and incense to take into the shrine for worship. Here too are the houses for the numerous temple employees; eating places for the worshipper who has often travelled a long distance to the temple; stables for the temple animals; in short, almost everything a normal township would provide.

**GREAT VAISHNAVA TEMPLE
AT SRIRANGAM, NEAR
TRICHINOPOLY
13TH TO 18TH CENT. A.D.**



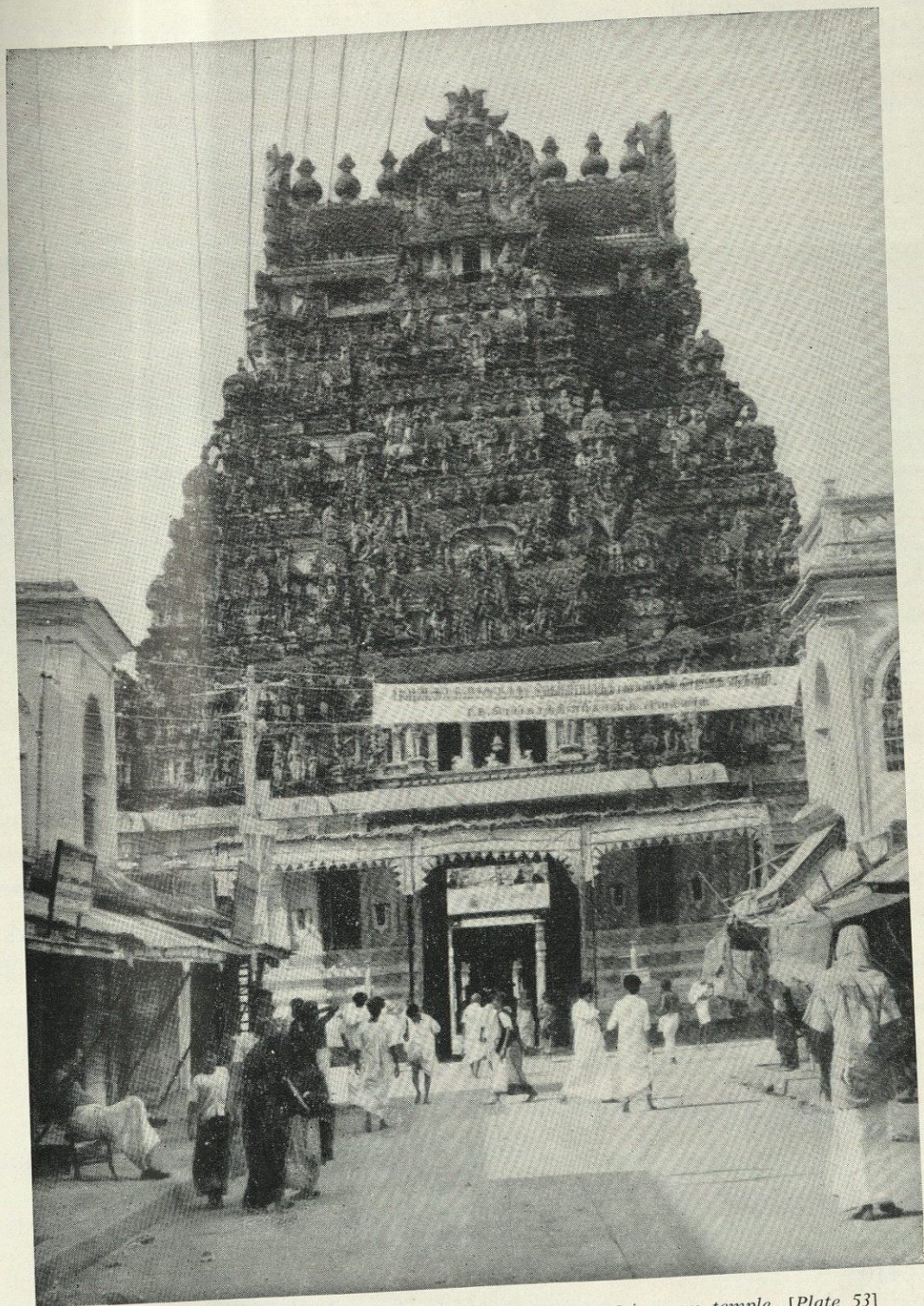
Simplified plan of Srirangam temple showing the seven enclosures and twenty-one entrance gopurams. Only the two innermost enclosures are roofed-in: the others are open to the sky.
[Plate 51]

The architectural portion of the temple begins with the fourth court, the outer wall of which measures roughly 1200 feet by 850 feet. There are entrance *gopurams* in the middle of three of the sides. Within this courtyard are two interesting structures. One is the Hall of a Thousand Pillars, with carved granite pillars arranged in rows. Most of the large southern temples have such halls. The other building is the famous 'Horse Court' which contains rows of pillars carved as furiously rearing horses. Each horse rears up to a height of nearly nine feet and the strength and vigour of these animals is most emphatically conveyed. [Plate 52] The third enclosure has a *gopuram* to the north and the south. The enclosure contains a fine pillared hall known as the Garuda mandapa. At the side of the hall is a covered tank known as the Surya Pushkarini, or Sun Tank. At the opposite end of the enclosure is another tank, horse-shoe in shape, called the Chandra Pushkarini, or Moon Tank.

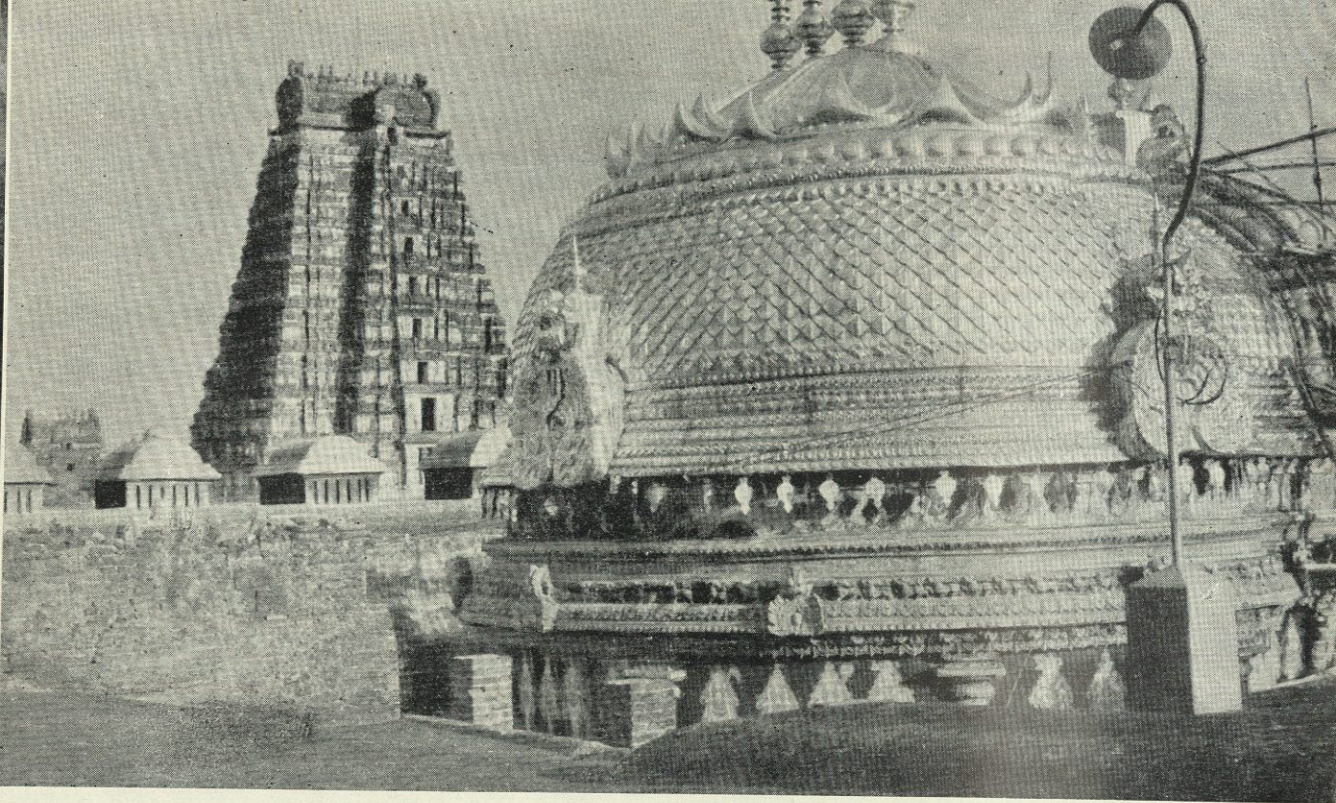
The second enclosure is also entered by *gopurams* to the north and the south. [Plate 53] This court is a completely covered one. It is occupied mainly by pillared pavilions with a long processional pillared passage to its western side. Within this is the innermost enclosure with a single

The 'Horse Court' from the fourth enclosure of the Srirangam temple. [Plate 52, pp 108]





Gopuram leading into the second enclosure of the Srirangam temple. [Plate 53]



Golden domical roof of the main shrine of the Srirangam temple, projecting above the flat roof of the innermost enclosure. [Plate 54]

gopuram on the south side. This innermost court is also covered and measures 240 feet by 181 feet. It contains the sanctuary which appears to be a square compartment, but the actual chamber within is circular. This is seen by its golden domical roof which projects above the flat roof of the enclosure. [Plate 54]

The Srirangam temple consists then of seven rectangular enclosures, containing within them a collection of buildings, halls, courts, tanks and shrines of various kinds. [Plate 51] In its original form the southern temple consisted of just a shrine with its tower, and a hall in front. These two were enclosed within a courtyard with a single entrance *gopuram*. How did it come about that the southern temple finally reached the stage of a temple-town as at Srirangam? Srirangam is an outstanding example, but it is by no means a solitary example. All the southern temples, Madurai, Chidambaram, Ramesvaram, Tirunelveli, Tiruvannamalai, consist of a similar rather confused grouping of buildings within several courtyards with *gopurams*, and all without any apparent pre-conceived plan. Most

of the southern temples reached their final form in gradual stages. Additions were made to the temple scheme at different periods and the final effect was reached over a long course of years.

This temple movement began under the Pandya dynasty in the thirteenth century and reached its climax under the Nayak rulers in the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries. Around A.D. 1250, the Pandyas defeated the Chola rulers and established themselves as the main power in south India. Up to this stage it had been the practice of the builders to devote their finest craftsmanship to the most sacred part of the temple—the shrine and its tower. Under the Pandyas this practice changed. Instead of the shrine being the central architectural production, much of the builders' skill was diverted to the decoration of outlying portions of the temple scheme.

One of the reasons for this change was that of sentiment. Throughout south India, on sites of great religious antiquity, were located a number of buildings of no particular artistic character. They were, however, of great sanctity because within them were enshrined images deserving of deep and lasting veneration. Many of the magnificent southern bronzes we considered in chapter 8 were originally contained within such shrines. Religious sentiment maintained that although these structures were architecturally insignificant, it was not proper to pull them down and put up others in their place. It was not considered proper even to change their appearance by, for example, increasing the height of the tower or by enlarging the hall. At the same time, these shrines were considered most holy and religious emotion for them had to find some outlet. This was done by surrounding these small shrines with high walls and making the entrances to these enclosures into gateways of an imposing size and appearance.

But from a single wall with an impressive *gopuram* to seven walls with 21 *gopurams* as at Srirangam is a long jump. What led to such a development? To a large extent, this growth of the southern temple was due to a corresponding growth of the temple ritual. The ceremonies associated with the religion had become very elaborate and this naturally had an effect on the buildings in which these ceremonies were performed. Part of the increase in the size of the temple was due to the wider powers now assigned to the deity. As we saw in chapter 8, the god

was now visualised in two capacities—one spiritual and the other rather like that of an earthly ruler. In his spiritual capacity he remained within the darkened mystery of the shrine, in the inner portion of the temple. However, on certain occasions, the god emerges from his retreat, assuming a form like that of an earthly ruler. In this aspect he is led forth in procession to take part in festivals and ceremonies of a semi-religious character. For this purpose the outer portions of the temple came into existence.

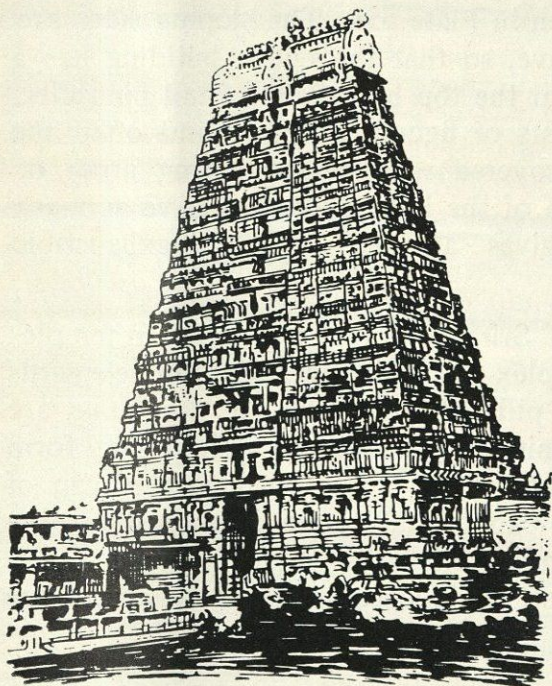
The enlargement of the southern temple proceeded on the following lines. Beginning from the centre, the shrine and its porch were enclosed within a spacious, flat-roofed structure forming the innermost court, the entrance to this being through a small *gopuram*. In course of time, this covered court itself came to be contained within another covered court. To this court there were two entrance *gopurams*. This generally completed the portion of the temple that was wholly covered and most sacred. The next step was that of enclosing both these covered courts within a rectangular enclosure, bounded by a high wall. A wide open courtyard known as a *prakaram* was left all around. Within this *prakaram* were added various structures, chiefly pillared halls and subsidiary shrines. There were also buildings of a semi-religious character such as granaries and rooms for storing the ceremonial supplies. This enclosure too was entered into by two *gopurams*. After a time, a still higher enclosing wall was added, leaving another appreciably larger *prakaram* all around. Within this enclosure, which was usually the last one, two important structures are to be found. One is a hall of a thousand pillars. The other is a tank for ceremonial bathing, lined with steps and surrounded by pillared corridors. Four *gopurams* led into this *prakaram*, and each set of *gopurams* was larger than the ones of the previous *prakaram*.

The entrance *gopurams* were introduced so frequently into the southern temple scheme that they have become the most striking feature in the temple architecture of the south. As you drive through the southern countryside, the approach of any major town is indicated by the *gopurams* that appear on the horizon. Some of them are really skyscrapers, reaching up to a height of 200 feet. At Srirangam, the *gopurams* of the outermost enclosure are unfinished, but construction has proceeded

enough to show that had they been finished according to the usual proportions, they would have attained the tremendous height of 300 feet. A typical *gopuram* consists of a building oblong in plan, rising up to a tapering tower, often over 150 feet in height. It is entered by a rectangular doorway in the centre of its long side. This corridor leading through the *gopuram* has rooms on either side intended to house the temple guards and doorkeepers. Out of one of these rooms leads a staircase by means of which the summit may be reached.

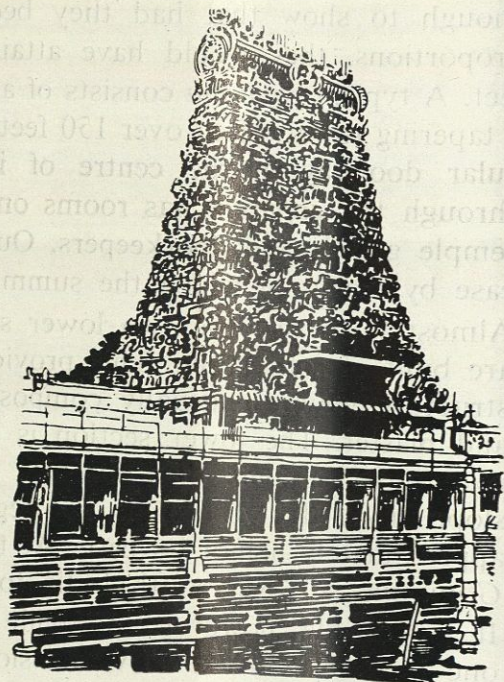
Almost invariably the two lower stories of the *gopuram* are vertical and are built of solid stone. This provides a stable foundation for the superstructure which is usually composed of lighter material such as brick and plaster. The tower section is pyramidal in shape and is composed of a series of tiers that diminish as they ascend. The average angle of slope from the vertical is 25 degrees, and the width at the top is approximately half of its base. At the flat top is an elongated type of roof. *Gopurams* all over south India follow this basic pattern.

It is possible, however, to divide these *gopurams* into two classes. In one type, as in Plate 55A, the sloping sides are straight, firm and rigid. In this variety, the decoration of the surface is almost purely of an



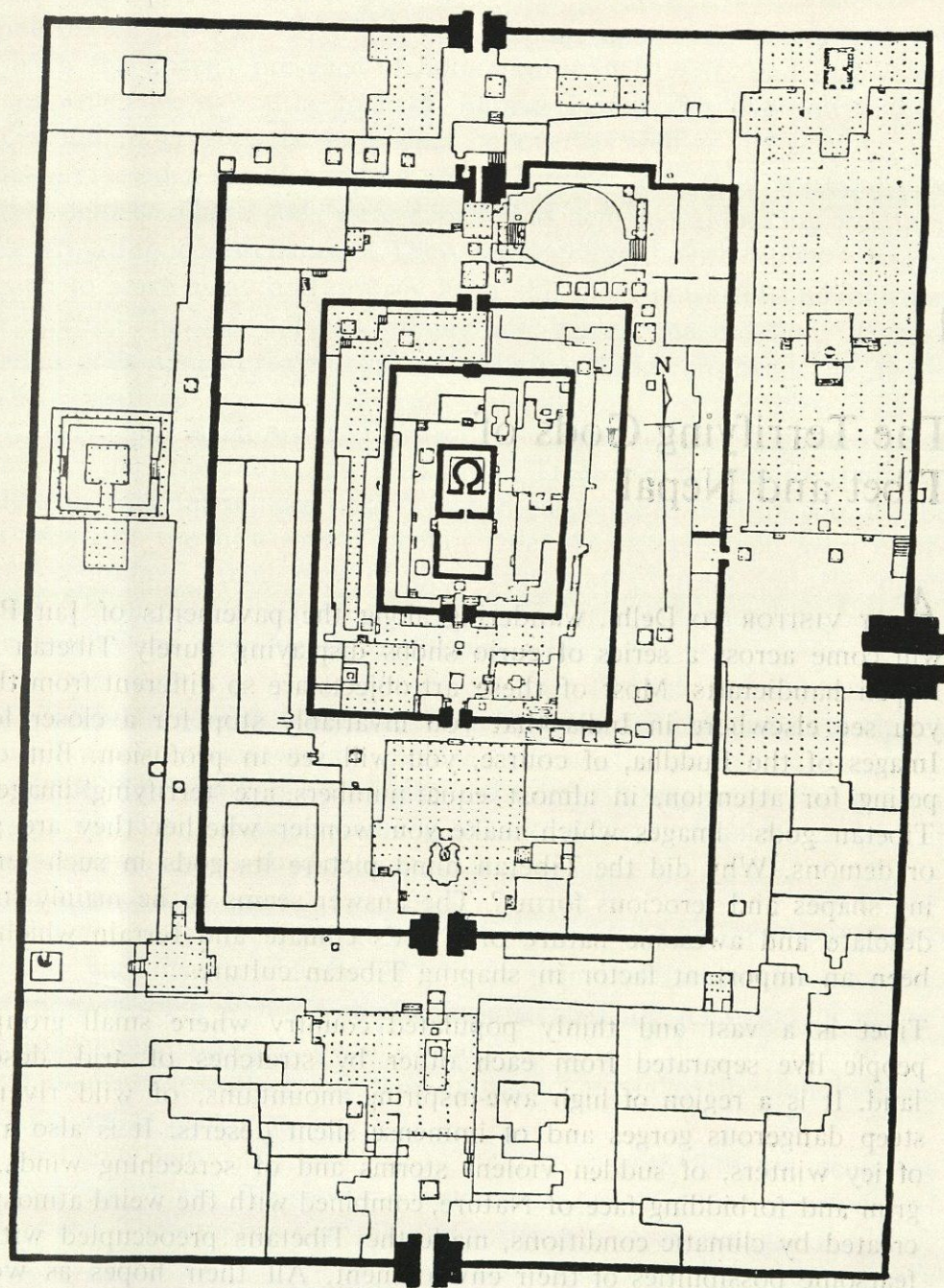
Gopuram with straight sides and architectural motifs as decoration. [Plate 55A]

Gopuram with curved sides and figural sculpture as decoration. [Plate 55B]



architectural nature consisting of pillars, pilasters, arches, and mouldings. The other class of *gopuram* is seen in Plate 55B. The sloping sides are not straight, but curved and concave, so that the entire building has a soaring upward sweep. The roof at the top has a row of tall pinnacles. Here the surface decoration consists of figural sculpture and often the entire surface of the *gopuram* is covered with a bewildering array of figures, mostly over life-size. Some of the large *gopurams* have as many as 1000 carved figures, which gives an idea of the inexhaustible resources of Hindu mythology.

It is apparent, from the example of Srirangam, that the southern temples consist of an unsystematic complex of buildings. Certain elements within these temples, such as the pillared halls and the *gopurams* are of high artistic merit. However, unity and harmony of architectural form is lacking, and one always tends to think of the parts rather than of the whole. At the same time, one cannot fail to be impressed by the strong atmosphere of devotion and reverence in the southern temples. Worship undoubtedly came first, while decorative art to emphasize worship was secondary.



Plan of the Great Temple, Srirangam
 (from *History of Indian and Eastern Architecture* by Fergusson)

The 4 inner courts. [Plate 56]

The Terrifying Gods of Tibet and Nepal

ANY VISITOR TO Delhi, wandering along the pavements of Jan Path, will come across a series of curio shops displaying purely Tibetan and Nepali handicrafts. Most of these art objects are so different from those you see elsewhere in India that you invariably stop for a closer look. Images of the Buddha, of course, you will see in profusion. But competing for attention, in almost equal numbers, are 'terrifying' images of Tibetan gods—images which make you wonder whether they are gods or demons. Why did the Tibetan mind picture its gods in such terrifying shapes and ferocious forms? The answer seems to lie mainly in the desolate and awesome nature of Tibet's climate and terrain which has been an important factor in shaping Tibetan culture.

Tibet is a vast and thinly populated country where small groups of people live separated from each other by stretches of arid, deserted land. It is a region of high awe-inspiring mountains, of wild rivers, of steep dangerous gorges and of immense silent deserts. It is also a land of icy winters, of sudden violent storms and of screeching winds. The grim and forbidding face of Nature, combined with the weird atmosphere created by climatic conditions, made the Tibetans preoccupied with the fearsome possibilities of their environment. All their hopes as well as fears were associated with it; it influenced not only their mind and character but also shaped their religion.

Chief among the fears to which the Tibetan mind was prone was the belief in the unseen presence of innumerable evil spirits and malevolent forces which were waiting to harm human beings. To overpower these forces and to protect the individual believer as well as his religion, the Tibetan created a set of wrathful and terrifying gods, who were all protective deities. These gods were depicted as demoniacal-looking creatures with frightful countenances. They were credited with powers strong enough to scare away and destroy even the most powerful and hideous evil spirits. The fear-complex, then, was behind the creation of these Tibetan gods. Once created, these horrifying deities enslaved the minds of their creators.

Tibetan religion is known as Lamaism, and Lamaism is a combination of Buddhism and the indigenous beliefs of Tibet. According to tradition, Buddhism was introduced into Tibet in the seventh century A.D. by the two wives of the first great Tibetan ruler Songsten-gampo who established a unified Tibet. One of the wives was Chinese and the other Nepali. Throughout the centuries, Tibet has been influenced by both the Chinese and the Indo-Nepali traditions.

When Buddhism was first introduced, the Tibetans were a nomadic tribe, illiterate and superstitious. They believed strongly in a group of magical practices known as Bon. Fear was the main sentiment by which the Bon religion upheld its authority. It exploited the natural fears to which the Tibetan mind was susceptible, and held out magical powers as the means to dispel these fears. With such a background, the Tibetans were inclined to be hostile towards the imported Buddhism; they did not understand its profound doctrines and learned theories. The only way Buddhism could survive in such primitive surroundings was by incorporating some of Bon's chief concepts, specially its belief in magic. It is this combination of Buddhism and Bon, with the addition, in the course of centuries, of certain new gods and attitudes that finally came to be known as Lamaism.

The terrifying deity of Tibet is to be found in both Tibetan sculpture and painting. Plate 57 shows a bronze image of the demoniac god Yamantaka. The emphasis in the composition of these images is always on the diagonal, and movement is expressed through the use of sharp angles at the joints of the limbs. The artist has chosen to exaggerate the posture of the body to better express the god's inherent power and

energy. Yamantaka is always represented black and naked with his main head that of a buffalo. He has eight more heads, all awesome. Thirtyfour hands carry various objects including a drum and thunderbolt. With 16 legs, he tramples animals and demons on the right and birds and demons on the left. The bronze is also painted and is a striking example of the effective use of colour to emphasize the ferocious aspect of the god. Red, for example, is used for eyebrows and gaping mouth and for the eye sockets of all the skulls decorating Yamantaka's head-dress. Though depicting such a terrifying image, the bronze is yet a graceful conception and reveals the technical excellence of the craftsman. This particular image of Yamantaka is a masterpiece that belongs to the seventeenth century. If you observe closely you will see that Yamantaka is shown in sexual union with his Shakti (the female force) whom he holds with his two main arms.

Representation of gods in sexual embrace is a common theme in the art of Tibet, and such images are referred to as *yab-yum* which means father-mother. In India, sexual analogy has often been used in religious texts to give concrete shape to an abstract idea or metaphysical concept. Throughout the centuries Indian sages have tried to explain that God and the human soul were essentially the same and not two separate entities. They maintained that realisation of this truth led to enlightenment. Sexual symbolism was found to be the most expressive and vivid means of depicting this concept—the fundamental unity behind an apparent duality. The inner significance of the *yab-yum* images of Tibet was explained only to initiates into Lamaism; the images were not intended for public display. Not only the benevolent gods but quite frequently the terrifying gods also were depicted in the *yab-yum* posture as in the case of the bronze Yamantaka of Plate 57.

The demoniac gods were often represented in paintings too. Tibetan scroll paintings are known as *tankas*. The *tanka* was usually painted on cotton or linen of Indian or Nepali manufacture. A mixture of seven parts of chalk to one part of glue was applied to the cloth to smooth the surface. This was polished with shell and the cloth was then dried and stretched in a wooden frame. The colours were mostly local—red, yellow and blue from mineral rocks near Lhasa and black from the soot of pinewood. Indigo and red lac were from India. The colours were mixed with white



This 17th century Tibetan bronze is a masterly representation of the terrifying god Yamantaka with red paint used to highlight his ferocious character. [Plate 57]



This Tibetan painting (tanka) depicts the terrifying god Mahakala around whom other fearful gods are seen engaged in a gruesome dance. [Plate 58]

(chalk) and held in a suspension of glue. Some of the paintings have a remarkable sparkle due to the greater amount of glue used in the mixing of the colours.

Plate 58 shows us a *tanka* depicting the terrifying protective god Mahakala. Painted completely black, this god is shown draped in snake and tiger skins. He has a wide gaping mouth with fangs and his three

protruding eyes are awe-inspiring. Mahakala wears a crown of skulls and is also ornamented with garlands of skulls. With one hand he brandishes a sword, in another he holds a trident threaded with skulls, with a third he displays a skull cap, and in the fourth hand is a coconut. Mahakala is represented against a magnificent background of orange, yellow and brown flames. Around him are several other terrifying deities, each surrounded by his own halo of coloured flames, and seemingly engaged in a gruesome dance. Hayagriva, the chief of these fearful deities, is depicted directly below Mahakala, while painted above him is

This tanka depicts the goddess Lha Mo, one of the most horrifying of Tibetan deities, and the protective goddess of the city of Lhasa. [Plate 59]





This painting of the Buddhist god Mahisha-Samvara, god of protection against enemies comes from Nepal. [Plate 60]

Vajrasattva (the Adi-Buddha) shown in union with his Shakti and flanked by monks and *siddhas*.

The *tanka* of Plate 59 depicts the female deity Lha Mo, who is one of the most frightful of the terrifying gods. Lha Mo is the protective goddess of the capital city Lhasa. She is always shown seated on her mule which has a distinctive third eye in its flank. Her frightful face has a gaping fanged mouth in which she holds a corpse. Her headdress is composed of orange flames; she wears a crown of skulls and a garland of severed heads. In one hand she holds a skull cap filled with blood, and with the other she brandishes a club 'over the brains of those who have broken their promises'. Lha Mo is shown riding through a sea of blood in which float the dead bodies of the wicked whom she has destroyed. Behind her is a further background of brown and yellow flames, while in the fore ground are two of her equally hideous goddess companions. It seems possible that Lha Mo, who is said to live in cemeteries, was a deity of entirely Tibetan origin. One can quite imagine the effect of these *tankas* on the simple and unquestioning mind of the worshipper. The walls of Tibetan monasteries were decorated with these *tankas* and the dark interiors were lit by flickering oil lamps. As the worshipper entered, he saw only groups of terrifying deities engaged in weird and fantastic dances!

To a lesser extent, the terrifying deity appears in Nepal also. Perhaps because of the less compelling natural environment of Nepal, and because of the proximity to India and Indian ideas, the terrifying god never held as important a position here as in Tibet. Plate 60 shows us one of the most popular of the Buddhist guardian deities of Nepal—Mahisha-Samvara. He is invoked and worshipped in Nepal as a god of protection against enemies. He has nine heads in three rows of three, and the main head is that of a buffalo. He has 34 arms which hold skulls and impaled bodies and six of the arms are in an inner circle close to the body. His 16 legs can best be counted by numbering the claws on his toes. The world of animals and men is shown prostrate at his feet. There is a halo of burning flames around Mahisha-Samvara and surrounding the halo are 48 repetitions of the main figure, each with its own halo of flames. The modern eye, gazing at these strange but elegant compositions which are such riots of line and colour, sees mainly the hand of the sculptor

and painter. But to the devout Tibetan, it was his protective deity, 'terrifying' only because of its glory and power. To him the image represented a god who yielded to his prayers and entreaties and shielded him from all harm. There are various representations of other gods and goddesses too in Tibetan and Nepali art, but these 'terrifying' gods are both characteristic and unique.



Fatehpur Sikri : A Ghost Town

MORE THAN ANY other deserted site, Fatehpur Sikri, with its imposing sandstone monuments and its arrangement of spacious paved areas, creates an atmosphere of peaceful isolation. Viewing the surroundings from the top of the Panch Mahal or from Birbal's palace, it is easy to conjure up the world of Akbar with its pomp and luxury on the one hand and its note of humanity and religious tolerance on the other. Despite the lapse of 400 years, the warm red sandstone monuments standing on top of the stony Sikri hill are unweathered and well preserved due to the hot and exceptionally dry climate of the area.

These gracious monuments offer a silent contrast to the busy present day village, reminding us that a somewhat similar contrast must have existed when Akbar decided to build a new capital at this secluded site. What remains to-day in such perfect condition at Fatehpur Sikri consists of only the palace buildings and the mosque on top of the hill. The rest of the town, which once occupied a large area around the base of the hill, was built of perishable material and has not stood the test of time.

To appreciate in full the artistic achievement of Fatehpur Sikri, it is necessary to understand something of the complex personality of Akbar. In youth, Akbar's activities prepared him to be only a soldier and conqueror while all his later inclinations were those of a scholar and lover of art. Perhaps because he himself was illiterate, he grew to be specially conscious of the immense value of culture and learning. Akbar became

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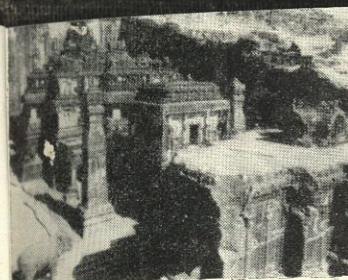
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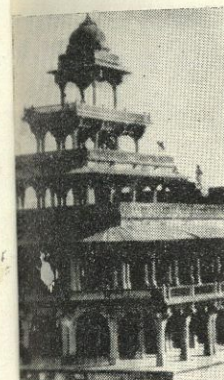
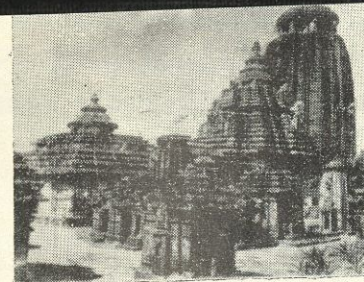
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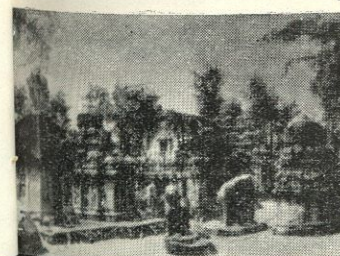
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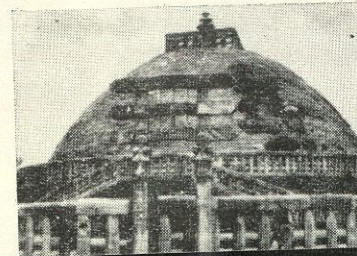


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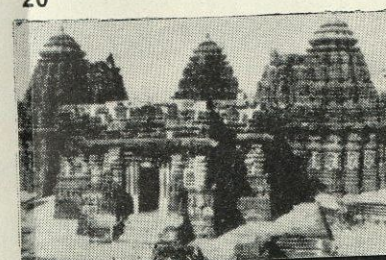
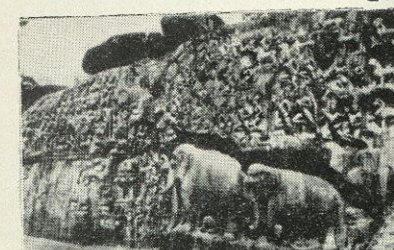
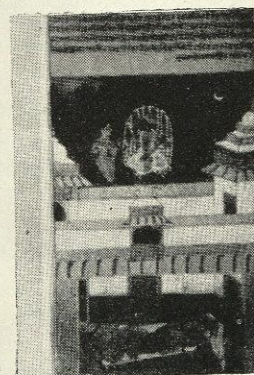
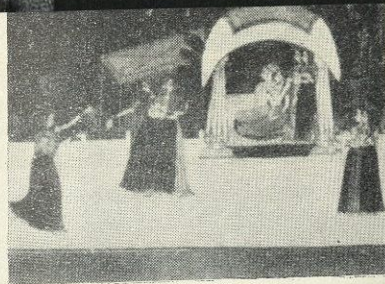
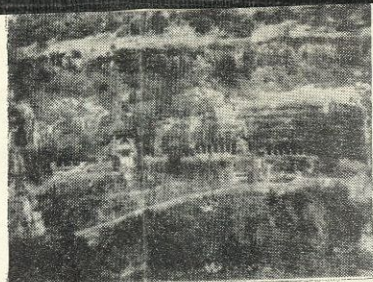
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LANDMARKS IN INDIAN ART

1. Kailasa Temple : Ellora.
2. Lingaraj Temple : Bhubaneswar.
3. Ajanta Caves.
4. Buddha in the Gandharan form.
5. Siva as half-woman : Elephanta.
6. "Horse-Court" : Srirangam Temple.
7. Saiva Trinity : Elephanta.
8. Sanchi stupa.
9. Pancha Pandava rathas : Mahabalipuram.
10. Birth of the Buddha : Gandharan relief.
11. Wall decoration : Halebid Temple.
12. Ladies' Palace—The "Panch Mahal" : Fatehpur Sikri.



13. Radha and Krishna :
a Kishangarh "miniature".
14. Sculptured figures :
Khajuraho.
15. Ravana episode :
Kailasa Temple, Ellora.
16. Musician maiden : Konarak.
17. Bundi "miniature" painting.
18. Kangra "miniature" painting.
19. Shore Temple :
Mahabalipuram.
20. Hoysala Temple : Somnathpur.
21. Cliff scene depicting
"Arjuna's Penance" :
Mahabalipuram.
22. Tanjavur bronze :
11th Century A.D.
23. Siva taking Parvati's hand in
marriage : 11th century A.D.
bronze.
24. Image of Nataraja :
Tanjavur Art Gallery.